CHAPTER – 1

INTRODUCTION

1.0 Introduction

India, or Bharat as it is popularly known, is an ancient land of diverse culture, languages and forms of worship. The oldest religion of the world, Hinduism, in its essence, is an attempt to realize the Absolute spirit. The endeavour of the sages, who meditated in their hermitages was to transform human life in the light of their spiritual experience. They emphasized the inner purity of the human mind, universal benevolence and eternal quest for the Infinite and the finite self.

Human mind holds the desire to reflect and interpret, to question, and to find answers to the problems of 'life, which is the core of all philosophical activities. Philosophy is an intellectual attempt to interpret Reality, and actually it is an adventure of the mind. In a systematic way philosophers have tried to think out things for which they employed various methods of perception. They use logic, reason, as well as intuition for the understanding and interpretation of Reality. What is discovered by Indian Sages using intuition was demonstrated by logic in the Darśanas or philosophical perceptions.

The Darśanas are not merely the fruits of intellectual speculation. Generally the term Indian philosophy is used to refer to diverse philosophical systems that have originated from the spiritual experience of the ancient Indian Sages. The Darśanas of India have had their influence on the thought and life of Indians down the centuries. It has preserved the spirit of the Indian mind and strengthened it so that it could with stand the challenges of repeated foreign conquests and colonisation. Systems of Indian Philosophy, like the Advaita has succeeded in providing spiritual solace to numerous Westerners who had lost peace of mind in the mad rush for material pleasures, even in contemporary times.

Philosophy in India is defined as 'Darśana' or 'Vision', because it is capable of giving a vision of reality. In this way it comes to be associated with the problems of pain and suffering, and methods to find relief from it. The sages of ancient India discovered that suffering is due to the ignorance about the nature of the real and the distinction between the real and the unreal.

According to Dr. S. Radhakrishnan, the chief characteristic of Western systems of philosophy is the 'primacy of the intellect' or 'critical intelligence.' There is close relation between science and philosophy in the west. Reason is given priority in the understanding of Reality. P.N. Rao, in his Introduction to Vedānta observes:-

"Socrates defined man, as a 'rational animal", Plato as a 'social animal' and Aristotle as a political animal.' It did not occur to any of them to define man as a spiritual being."[1]

During the Middle Ages Christian dogmas were supreme. In the 18th century Descartes introduced the rational approach in Western Philosophy. Spinoza adopted scientific principles in his search for truth. Kant revolutionised philosophy by rejecting Metaphysics as a science, and Hegal identified the real with the rational.[2]

The Vedānta declares that the transcendent is unknowable. Indian philosophy believes that separate means of knowledge (Pramāṇas) are needed for the realization of the ultimate reality. So vedānta justifies the authority of the scriptures. The Darśanas are the philosophical systems that originated from the spiritual experience of the sages of ancient India. Subsequently they were systematised and explained in terms of reason and logic. The range and variety of the nine systems (six Āstika and three Nāstika) Darśanas are really astounding. The orthodox group of Shad Darśanas are the Nyāya, the Vaiśeṣika, the Saṅkhya, the Yoga, the Mīmāmsa and the Vedānta systems. Since they believe in the authority of the Vedas, they are called Āstika Darśanas and the Nāstika group which does not have faith in the scriptures includes Buddhism, Jainism and the Cārvāka school of atheism.

The ideal of the Indian philosophical attitude is to seek Mokṣa or liberation from the cycle of birth and death. It is the ultimate aim of human life. Hence the travel of Indian philosophy is not merely to enhance knowledge or to journey through the right path of thought and action. It shows 'a way of life' and not just 'a view of life' as in the West. In short, philosophy in India aims at the direct experience of Reality, and not a mere intellectual mode of approaching it. It is believed that intellectual study and reasoning must be strengthened by moral excellence and ethical virtues." One who has controlled himself through the indriyas which have been faced from the influence of love and hate."(Bhagavad Gita 2.64) [3]

In the West the term 'philosophy' is used to refer to that branch of knowledge which aims at the intellectual interpretation of Reality. Their tools to acquire knowledge are reason and interpretation. Reliance on intuition is rejected as non-scientific.

Philosophy is the culmination of all knowledge, since it helps to understand the significance of human experience, 'Philo' and 'sophia' are two Greek terms which mean 'love' and 'knowledge' respectively. 'Philosophy' means love of knowledge, and its main branch 'epistemology looks into the nature and validity of knowledge and its limitations. In India the origin of philosophy can be traced to the vedas, and the teachings of

the Upaniṣads, which discuss various aspects of truth. As the aim of philosophy is intense spiritual quest for the realization of truth, in India it is called 'Darśana' or vision. 'Darśana' stands for direct, immediate and intuitive vision of Reality, and the means to realise it.

As mentioned, the schools of philosophical systems in India are divided into two broad groups called Āstika (orthodox) and Nāstika (heterodox). The Āstika group includes the six philosophical systems known as the Ṣad Darśanas, namely the Nyāya, Vaiśeṣika, Sāṅkya, Yoga, Mīmāmsa and Vedānta. They are called Āstika because all of them accept the authority of the vedas. All these systems do not have belief in God, for instance, the Mīmāmsa, and the Saṅkhya Darśanas do not accept God as the creator of the world.

In the Western World philosophy is categorised according to the convenience of the learner. The difference between the Western and Indian philosophical approaches is that while in the West it remained merely as a "love of knowledge", and an intellectual quest for truth, in India philosophy became intensely spiritual, emphasizing the practical realization of truth.

As Socrates said, the acceptance of ignorance of truth is the first step towards the pursuit of knowledge. According to this method the aim of knowledge is the attainment of correct definition of ideas. This Socratic

method of definition and deduction inspired Plato to form his dialectical method, which helped Aristotle' to develop the logical method. In the 17th century the French Philosopher Rene Descartes put forward his mathematical method of axiomatic truth. His famous statement "Cogito ergo sum" (I think therefore I exist) suggests that truth is indubitable, certain, and absolute.[4]

In India, Mīmāmsa means inquiry or investigation. The Pūrva Mīmāmsa and Uttara Mīmāmsa (vedānta) are philosophical systems based on the Vedas and the Upaniṣads. It is believed that Sage Jaimini is the founder of the Mīmāmsa system. The Mīmāmsa systems do not accept God as the creator of the world, or the words of the vedas as divine. Instead of recommending the vedas as scriptural truth Jaimini advises his disciples to make use of perception and inference as sources of knowledge.

Probably, the Vedas are the oldest (Between 1500 – 800 BC) scriptures known to man. Etymologically, the word Veda means 'related to wisdom'. Vedānta means the last stage of the vedas. The Upaniṣads are often considered as the apex of the Vedas, because they provide the ultimate essence of vedic knowledge. Though there are more than hundred Upaniṣads, ten among them are considered extremely important. They try to analyse and answer questions such as 'what is Brahman?"

what is Ātman? etc. Many sages and scholars like Śankara, Rāmānuja, Mādhva and Vallabha have composed studies or Bhāṣya on Vedānta philosophy, based on which various schools of vedānta have been established,

The Vedānta Darśanas deal with the nature of Brahman or the ultimate Reality. The schools systematised the teachings of the Upaniṣads. The school of Advaita Vedānta, founded by Śankarācārya advocates absolutism or spiritualistic monism. According to Śankara ignorance breeds bondage, and knowledge is the key to attain liberation. Śravaṇa, Manana and Nidhidyāsana are the means to attain liberation.

Madhavacārya advocated Dvaita Vedānta or philosophy of dualism between the world and Brahman. It is a philosophy of difference between Ātma and Brahman. Only to past Karma, selves, entangled with bodies suffer pain and misery, liberation from which can be attained by Bhakti – Yoga.

1.1 Indian Sources of Knowledge

Epistemology, or the study of the sources of knowledge is the basis of philosophy. The nature, sources and the possibilities and limits of human knowledge are the areas covered by it. Two main sources of human knowledge are perception (sense experience) and reason

(inference). In Western Philosophy there is difference of opinion regarding Empiricism and Rationalism. Empiricists consider sense – experience as the source of right knowledge, while Rationalists regard intellect as the source of all knowledge. The champion of Empiricism is John Locke and the leader of Rationalism is Descartes. Both Locke and Descartes were against the traditional method of verbal testimony. Instead, they advised people to think for themselves. Both Empiricism and Rationalism had their supporting philosophers in the West. Locke, Berkley, Hume and J.S. Mill were supporters of the school of Empiricism. They claimed that all knowledge requires proof based on empirical data. On the other hand, Descartes, Spinoza, Leibniz and Wolff supported the rational approach to knowledge. In India the faith in a law that has faith in regularity and righteousness pervades the poetic imagination of the seers of Rigveda, who called it Rta.[5]

Thus there is deep controversy between the philosophy of Empiricism and that of Rationalism in the West. In India Epistemology is known as Jñāna Mīmāmsa. Indian Darśanas have thought deeply on the issues regarding the nature of knowledge (pramā), sources or means of knowledge (Pramāṇas), objects of knowledge (prameya) and the knower of knowledge (pramātā), as well as the limits of human knowledge. These

two groups are traditionally called Āstika which recognize the value of the vedas, and those which reject it called Nāstika.

The Nyāya Darśana accepts four sources of knowledge such as perception (pratyakṣa), inference (anumana), verbal testimony (śabda) and comparison (upamana). Gautama's concept of the sources of knowledge are broad. He accepts the reason and experience through the senses as important means of knowledge, and adopts pragmatic view in the test of truth. In contrast the materialistic view of Cārvāka accepts only perception as the source of valid knowledge. The empirical view point of the Nāstika Darśanas rejects inference and verbal testimony as sources of knowledge.

The Vaiśeṣika Darśana believes that all objects of the universe are composed of atoms of earth, water, air and fire. The physical elements of the universe such as ether, time, mind, space, earth etc. are neither created nor destroyed. The world is created and destroyed by God according to the moral qualities of the individual soul.

The Sāṅkya system recognizes only two kinds of ultimate reality namely, prakṛti and puruṣa. The universe is composed of twenty-four principles. Prakṛti is the first among them, others are thirteen organs, five gross elements and five tanmatras. The Sāṅkya theory of knowledge accepts only three independent sources of knowledge (Pramāṇas). They

are pratyakṣa (perception), anumāna (inference) and śabda (or scriptural testimony). Other three means of knowledge such as comparison (upamāna), postulation (arthapatti) and non-cognition (anupalabdi) are included under the above three Pramāṇas.[5]

The system called Yoga is closely allied to the Sāṅkya system, and hence it also followed the Sāṅkya view of accepting the three Pramāṇas of perception, inference and scriptural testimony. However the Mīmāmsa theory of philosophy, which contains a number of different schools of thought discusses elaborately the nature of knowledge. First of all, the Mīmāmsa accepts two kinds of knowledge – immediate and mediate. Only that knowledge, which brings some new information, and is not contradicted by any other knowledge is considered valid knowledge.

Mīmāmsa admits perception (pratyakṣa) as the most reliable source of valid knowledge. In addition, it admits five other sources of knowledge such as anumāna, upamāna, śabda, arthapatti and anupalabdhi. Anupalkabdhi is accepted only by the school of Kumarila Bhaṭṭa. It is not accepted as a Pramāṇa by the schools of Prabhākara Miśra.

Vedānta means the destination of the vedas. If suggests what the Upaniṣads have aimed at. In another sense in the Upaniṣads, we find the culmination of the philosophy of the vedas. Bādarāyaṇa Sūtra (also called Vedānta – Sūtra or Brahma Sūtra) undertakes the task of systematizing the different teachings of the Upaniṣads. The Brahma Sūtra gave rise to

different commentaries and the authors of these commentaries or Bhaṣya, later became the founders of various schools of Darśanas. Thus the schools of vedānta like those of Śaṅkara, Rāmānuja, Mādhava, Vallabha, Nimbārka and others developed.

The vedānta schools reject the Sāṅkya theory that unconscious primal matter (prakṛti) composed of three guṇas (sattva, rajas and tamas) gives rise to the world without the guidance of a conscious agent is not satisfactory. Similarly the Vaiśeṣika theory that the world is caused by the combination of atoms is also unacceptable. However, the vedānta does not make any attempt as in the Nyāya philosophy to look for logical proof for the existence of God. While human body is limited within space and time, his spirit is eternal.[6]

The Brahma sūtra of Bādarāyaṇa tries to systematize the view point of the vedas and the Upaniṣads. Later commentators of the Brahma sūtra (vedānta sūtra) provided their own interpretation to the sūtras and the Upaniṣads. Among the various schools of Darśanas developed based on the Brahma sūtra, the interpretations of the vedas and the Upaniṣads, the Advaita of Sri Śankara became the most prominent. Next in importance comes the Viśiṣṭadvaita of Rāmānujācārya. The Upaniṣads deny man an existence without God. Though both ācāryas (Śaṅkara and Rāmānuja)

accept this view their interpretations of man's dependence on God are different.

1.2 Statement of the Research Problem

'Darśana' is an attempt to look philosophically into the nature of the universe as well as the human soul. It is not an intellectual pursuit to understand the material truth, but a spiritual quest to experience the Absolute. Darśana means vision, and philosophically it is the endeavour to achieve the knowledge of truth. The term 'Darśana' is derived from the root dṛs which signifies direct, immediate or intuitive vision of Reality.

The Āstika Darśanas are orthodox schools of thought built on the authority of the vedas and Upaniṣads and the Nāstika Darśanas are heterodox views which question the Āstika belief in the existence of the absolute. The Shad Darśanas are Āstika in their outlook, but the materialistic views of the Cārvāka school and the philosophy of Buddhism and Jainism are considered Nāstika.

All systems of thought in India paid careful attention to the concept of Pramāṇa as it was the ultimate source of all knowledge. The Sanskrit word Pramāṇa signifies the essential means of arriving at valid knowledge or Pramā. The object known is described as prameya, and the knower is pramāta. There is great diversity in the views regarding the nature and

scope of Pramāṇas, but all Darśanas recognize their importance in providing knowledge.

This study aims at the analysis of the nature and function of each of the Pramāṇas, and to make an assessment of how each Āstika Darśana makes use of the Pramāṇas as sources of valid knowledge.

Valid information regarding the Pramāṇas accepted by each of the six Āstika Darśanas has been investigated. The views on the Pramāṇas expressed by the Nāstika Darśanas also have been looked into for comparison.

Though the number of Pramāṇas accepted by each Darśana may vary from one to six, their relevance and significance on the Darśanas is considerable. The Pramāṇas such as pratyakṣa, anumāna, upmāna, śabda, anupalabdi and arthapathi are analysed in detail and their influence and importance in each of the Darśanas are assessed.

1.3 Research Objectives

In Indian philosophy the science of knowledge or Epistemology deals with the areas related to knowledge such as perception, awareness, inference, verbal cognition, doubt, error, illusion, memory etc. All these categories of knowledge come under Jñāna which developed from the root Jña which means to know. The word prama, which signifies real or

valid knowledge is a synonym for Jñāna. Jñāna includes all kinds of knowledge, including both true and false knowledge. Therefore, a distinction is made in Indian Darśanas between valid knowledge and Invalid knowledge.

(1) The chief point of enquiry undertaken in this research study is to analyze the Pramāṇas used by the different schools of thought to distinguish between valid knowledge and knowledge which doesnot come under that category as per the dogmas of the various Darśanas.

(2) The desire for knowledge (tattva – jiñāsa) was the basic requirement for the study of philosophy in ancient India. It was this spirit of enquiry that kept alive the torch of learning during the Golden Age of Vedic period.

In the quest for knowledge, four factors are involved - pramāta (one who is guided by the desire to know), Pramāṇa (instrument or means to knowledge), premeya (the object that is known or knowable) and Prama (the valid knowledge of the object) in the fulfilment of the tattva. The relation between these four factors, according to the conception of the Darśanas is also one of the problems analyzed in this study.

In Indian philosophy, convictions or beliefs regarding reality are taken as knowledge. It they are approved by a Pramāṇa they are accepted

as valid knowledge, which is understood as a stepping stone towards truth or reality.

Among the various view points, arguments and counter arguments raised by the different schools of thought, the Advaita of Saṅkara seems to be more advanced, as it declares that the so called Vṛtti – Jñāna (empirical or pragmatic knowledge) is not eligible for the title Jñāna (knowledge) unless it is illumined by the principle of consciousness or Brahma.[7]

1.4 Review of Literature

Indian philosophy includes the theoretical speculations of many thinkers and sages who lived hundreds of years ago. The writings of Indian philosophers, like the Sarva Darśana Saṅgraha of Madhvacarya, try to include the views of different darsanas in it, have a comprehensive view. The vedas are the earliest available record of Indian spiritual literature. The vedic tradition had both ritualistic and speculative sides, known as karma and Jnana. While vedānta emphasizes the speculative aspect, the Mīmāmsa stresses the ritualistic aspect.

Īsvara Kṛṣṇa's Saṅkhya Kāraika is the most authentic text of Saṅkhya darśana. It is believed that the author lived around AD Ist Century. Vacaspati Miśra (898-976) has written a commentary to it known as Saṅkhya Tattva Kaumudi. Kṛṣṇa Vallabhācārya wrote in the 20th

century a commentary on Saṅkhya Kārika called Kiraṇāvali. All these treatises contain scholarly perceptions on the Pramāṇas acknowledged by Saṅkhya darśana which can be considered as authentic observations and explanations of the principles of Saṅkhya.

We do not have any authentic details regarding the life and work of Maharṣi Patañjali, who is the author of Yoga – sūtra. Vacaspati Miśra (898-976) wrote a Bhaṣya dealing with the Principles of Yoga called Tattva Vaisaradi. Vijña Bhikṣu (AD 1550 – 1600) wrote a commentary called Vartika on the Yoga sūtra. Nagesa Bhaṭṭa in the 17th century wrote an enlarged commentary called Bṛhati and a condensed Bhaṣya called Lakhvi, dealing with Patañjali's Yoga sūtra. Swami Vivekānanda's commentary called Rajayoga is in English, and has been translated to many languages of the world, including Malayalam. All these scholarly commentaries on Patañjali's text Yoga sūtra contain observations on the Yoga perceptions regarding the Pramāṇas.

The philosophy called Nyāya is essentially concerned with the conditions of correct thinking and the means of acquiring a true knowledge of reality. The Nyāya and Vaiśeṣika are allied systems of philosophy and hence called Samāna tantra. Gautama's Nyāya sūtra is the basic text of Nyāya philosophy, while Vaiśeṣika sūtra, contains 10chapters and 370

sūtras. It was Udayanācārya who tried first to co-relate the philosophies of Nyāya and Vaiśeṣika.

The most famous commentary on Nyāya sūtra was composed by Vatsyayana in about AD 400, and others were written by Udyotakara in AD 635 Vacaspati Miśra in AD 841 (Nyāya Vartika Tātparya Ṭika), Udayanācārya in AD 984 (Nyāya Vartika Tātparya Ṭika Pariṣuddhi), Srikanta before AD 1409 (Nyāyalaṅkara), Abhaya Ṭilakopadhyaya (before 1409 – Nyāya vṛtti) Vardhamana before AD 1409 (Nyāya Nibandha Prakasika), Vacaspati Miśra (Nyāya sūtradharam in the 15th C.), Ramabhadran II (Nyāya Rahasyam in the 17th C), Visvanatha siddhanta Panchanan (Nyāya sūtra Vṛtti in the 17th C.), Jayaraman (Nyāya Siddhantamāla in the 17th C.), Govinda Nyāya Vargeesan (Nyāya Samkṣepam in the 17th C), Mahadeva Vedanti (Mithabhāṣiṇi Vṛtti in the 17th C), Govardhana (Nyāyabhiddhi in 16th C) and Madhuranātha (Nyāya sūtra in the 16th C).

The earliest available Bhāṣya on Kanāda's Vaiśeṣika sūtra is the Padārtha Dharma Sangraha of Praśasthapāda. (4th C. AD). Usually known as Praśasthapāda Bhāṣya, it is an extended independent explanation of the basic text. Vyomaśiva's Vyomavati, Udayanacarya's Kiraṇāvali, and Sridharacārya's Nyāya – Kandāli are the three famous commentaries on the work of Praśasthapada.

There are other valuable explanations on Vaiśeṣika Darśana such as Vallabhacārya's Nyāya – Lilavati, Udayana's Lakṣaṇāvali, Śivāditya's Sapta – padārthi, Laugākṣi Bhaskara's Tarka Kaumudi and Visvanatha's Bhāsa pariccheda and its commentary Siddhanta Muktāvali.

Both Pūrva Mīmāmsa and Uttara Mīmāmsa (Vedānta) are Darśanas which have their roots running deep in the vedas and the Upaniṣads. While the former deals with the enquiry of dharma, the latter undertakes the analysis of the significance of Jñāna. Pūrva Mīmāmsa and Uttara Mīmāmsa (Vedānta) are complementary to each other. The ultimate objective of the Mīmāmsas is not the interpretation of the vedas, but the enquiry of what is dharma. It is stated in the first sūtra itself of śloka vartika by Kumārila Bhaṭṭa.[8]

अथातो धमजिज्ञासा सूत्रमाद्यमिदं कृतम्
धमाख्यं विषयं वक्तु मीमांसायाः प्रयोजनम् || (5.11)

The fundamental text of Mīmāmsa Darśanas is the sūtras of sage Jaimini. It contains 12 chapters, 61 pādas, 907 adhikaraṇās, and 2644, sūtras. It is the biggest among the Indian darśanas. The most well known and authentic bhaṣya of Jaimini sūtras is by Sabaraswamy. There are 22,000 ślokas in Sabarabhāṣya. Among the commentators on Sabarabhāṣya there are great acāryas like Kumarila Bhaṭṭa (660 AD),

Prabhakara Miśra an (700 AD), Mandana Miśra (660 AD), Parthasārathy Miśra (1075 AD). Appayya Dīkṣithar (1520 – 1593) and others.

Bādarāyaṇa's Brahma sūtra is the basic text behind the formation of the vedānta school of Darśanas. All branches of vedānta such as Saṅkara's Advaita, Nimbarka's. Dvaita, Vallabha's puredvaita, Madva's Dvaita, Ramanuja's Viśiṣtadvaita and Bhaskara's 'Bhedābheda' - all are dependant on the theoretical base of Brahma sūtra, which is actually the core of the philosophy contained in the Upaniṣads. Though the Upaniṣads are 108 in number, the most important among them are 10, called 'Dasopaniṣd' which are Eaśavāsya, Kenam, Kaḍam, Praśnam, Munḍka, Māṇdūkya, Thaithirīyam, Ithareyam, Chandogyam and Bṛhatāraṇyakam. Ācārya Saṅkara has written bhāṣyas or commentaries on all the ten Upaniṣads which are the greatest treasure house of knowledge on the philosophy of Vedānta.

1.5 Hypothesis

It is the basic nature of man to think and reflect. He does not stop asking questions and seeking answers. As Plato said, the noblest of all enquiries is the study of what man should be and what he should look for. From the earliest of times Indian sages had endeavoured to construct a coherent system of thought to interpret Reality.

The Pramāṇās of the Darśanas aim at clarity of philosophical vision, especially in the enquiry of Truth. They give us strength of purpose and direction in all aspects of life. Philosophical perceptions transcend the limitations of materialism and enrich intellectual as well as spiritual attainments. Man does not live in the matter of fact existence alone, but in a world of introspection that reveals life in a new light. In this attempt the Indian Darśanas have helped the world tremendously to eradicate obstacles in the search for truth.

The significance of the Pramāṇās, particularly those underlying the Āstika darśanas cannot be disputed. It is because insight occurs in the mind before its materialisation in action in life's situations. This was known to the sages of India thousands of years ago.

It is hypothesed that beyond apparent and superficial differences among the concepts of the Pramāṇās in the diverse Āstika darśanas, being theistic, are based on faith in the vedas, and the Pramāṇās have been deeply influenced by the vedas as well as the Upaniṣads, and the Bhagavat Gīta which contain their philosophical essence.

It has been observed that the various commentaries, Bhaṣyas, Ṭīkas and explanations offered by later scholars on the philosophical treatises, in general, have been beneficial in elucidating the spirit of the Āstika darśanas and their Pramāṇās.

It is also suggested that the disparity in the number of the Pramāṇās in the darśanas is due to the diversity in their philosophical perspectives. Therefore it is assumed that an indepth study of the nature and scope of the darśanas becomes essential for a proper perspective on Indian darśanas.

Beyond doubt, the Pramāṇās of Indian darśanas can enable people to see things in the right perspective so that the evils of error, hatred and confusion are avoided and correct knowledge could be achieved. As a result impartiality of judgement might lead one to accomplish truth in thought and wisdom in decision making. The Pramāṇās might enable one to develop clarity in understanding and thereby liberate the individual from the tyranny of narrow vision and selfish intention. Moreover they could build stronger basis for synthesizing knowledge and establishing universality in throught and feeling. Finally, it is probable that the proper perspective in beliefs and ideas might promote tolerance and respect among people by creating better understanding among people. For instance this study does not limit itself with in Indian philosophy. It tries to encompass the theological dogma of Christian religions also. Attempts have been made to incorporate the Christian concept of pluralistic Inclusivism also within the scope of the pramanas.

1.6 Methodology Adopted

This study has adopted the method of deductive research based on scholarly treatises and their explanatory commentaries. The primary sources of the study are the basic texts of the topic such as the sūtras, the Sacred Indian Writings and their Bhāṣyas. Analytical study has been made on the basis of the above works and comparative method of evaluation is undertaken wherever necessary.

1.6 Scope and Relevance of the Study

According to the perspective of the ancient Indian Darśanas the individual is obliged not merely to the well-being of himself, but to the whole living beings of the world as per the motto:

"□□□□ □□□□□ □□□□□ □□□□□□"

Undoubtedly the Indian objective of life is not different from the common precept. "Love thy neighbour as thyself." As Romain Rolland points out in his book on Mahatma Gandhi the ideal is that "every living being is thy neighbour."[9]

In short, the spirit of Indian Darśanas stresses devotion to duty rather than the assertion of rights.

The study of the Āstika Darśanas and its underlying Pramāṇas are more relevant today because it illustrates best the principle of ahimsa

(non– injury) which alone can sustain the world from annihilation. The advanced development of technological innovation has heightened human egoism to such an extent that other species are destroyed for the benefit of man. The Darśanas challenge the anthropo centric view that all other creatures are lower than human beings. It directs us to look upon every living being as equally sacred, as a part of Jīva – ātma or a tiny spark of the glory of the infinite, the paramātma.

Pramāṇas are means or methods by which knowledge can be ascertained. It is a way of analyzing, clarifying and evaluating theories and concepts. The Pramāṇas offer different methods of enquiry to approach the truth and ascertain its validity. Unlike in the West, Indian Darśanas do not provide a singular path for the realisation of truth. Socratic Method is dialogical, it is inductive, deductive and yet sceptical. The method adopted by Descartes (the Cartesian approach) is inconclusive and sceptical. Jaimini, Śabarswami and the Mīmāmsas of India used the investigative method whose source is the vedas. So the Indian method is regarded as hermeneutical and exegetical in nature.

The aim of this study is to find out the significance of the Indian approach of utilising the Pramāṇas as means of valid knowledge, and to ascertain the areas of its uses for the advancement of learning and knowledge in the fast changing world of modern technology. It also

undertakes the intention of finding the possibility of pluralism and inclusiveness which can bring in tolerance. India is at the threshold of far-reaching progress not only in scientific and technological development but also investigating the possibilities of enhancing our traditional knowledge for the benefit of the country, its people and the world in general. In this changing scenario, the glimpses of our traditional means of increasing knowledge and wisdom may become sources of strength and inspiration to the world.

1.8 Structure of the Thesis

The thesis entitled "Pramāṇas of Āstika Darśanas: A Study " is an investigation into the inner significance and relevance of the Ṣad Darśanas (the six Āstika Darśanas) of ancient Indian philosophy. The thesis is structured in six chapters beginning with an introduction and completing with a concluding chapter. In the opening chapter, in addition to the general introduction, there are sections dealing with Research Problem statement, Aims and objectives, Review of Literature, Statement of Hypothesis, a note on the relevancy of the present study etc.

The second chapter, having the title "Darśanas" provides the essential definition of the word 'Darśana '. It traces the origin and development of Indian Darśanas and highlights the philosophical significance of the theistic vision of the ancient sages of India. An attempt

has also been made to look into the general nature of the Indian and Western philosophical perspectives such as the darśanas. Moreover, the importance of Sanskrit language as an intellectual medium for the delineation of spiritual perspectives is also highlighted.

The third chapter, under the title 'Āstika Darśanas' defines what a Pramāṇa is, and points out the essential basis of Āstika Pramāṇas. The authority of Pramāṇas in ancient and medieval philosophy is explained with illustrations. Finally, the major Pramāṇas of Indian Darśanas are taken up for analysis such as Pratyakṣam, Anumāṇa, Upamāṇam, Śabdam, Arthapathy and Anupalabdhi. In the succeeding sections of the third chapter, the Pramāṇas of Sāṅkhya, Yoga, Nyāya, Vaiśeṣika, pūrva mīmāmsa and Uthara Mīmāmsa (Vedānta) are taken up for detailed analysis.

Chapter Four deals with the Textual Tradition of Āstika Darśanas with special reference to the Pramāṇas. The basic texts of Āstika Darśanas such as Sāṅkhya kārika, Yoga sūtram, Nyāya sidhāntha muktāvali, Nyāya sūtrāṇi, Vaiśeṣika sūtrāṇi, Artha sangraham, and vedānta sāram are taken up for analytic study.

The chapter number five contains an analysis of the Pramāṇas. In separate sections topics such as pratyakṣam and Anumānam are subjected to detailed analysis. In each section of the chapter various

aspects of pratyakṣam and Anumānam in each of the six Darśanas, such as Sāṅkhyam, yogam, Nyāyam, Vaiśeṣika, pūrva Mīmāmsa and Uthara Mīmāmsa are undertaken.

The concluding chapter number six contains an assessment of the findings of the study beginning with the aspects of the Darśanas, and evaluates the possibilities of including pluralistic Inclusivism the Indian achievement in the attainment of spiritual perspectives. In addition to the dissemination of knowledge on the lesser known aspects of Indian Darśanas it undertakes the duty of high lighting the Indian ideal of Loka samastha sukhim bhaventu or total well-being to all living entities of the world."

1.9 The Applicability the Pramāṇas

According to Advaita vedānta knowledge is the means of attaining liberation or mokṣa. Śankara asserted again and again that the Absolute can be realized through knowledge. Other means like Karma and Upāsana are only secondary because they can help us to know and prepare us for knowledge by purifying the minds. Only knowledge alone enable us to become one with the Absolute or Brahman, according to Advaita Vedānta.

All Darśanas regard ignorance or Avidya as the root cause of Bondage which creates pain and misery in human minds. Just as light removes darkness, knowledge destroys ignorance completely. The Pramāṇas are the means by which knowledge can be attained. In addition to the proper use of the Pramāṇas one has to follow the four- fold discipline to attain mokṣa or liberation, such as samanyasa or discrimination between the eternal and the non- eternal, the renunciation from all desires for the enjoyment of the senses, control of the mind, detachment, patience and power of concentration for the attainment of liberation. In addition there are other requirements like Śravaṇa, Manana and Nidhidyāsana. Śravaṇa is listening to the instructions of a Guru, manana is mental reflection and intellectual conviction of the search for truth and its realisation. Finally, Nidhidyāsana or dyāna (meditation) helps to achieve intuition which can provide mokṣa (liberation) for the aspirant. Though both in the West as well as the East the basic problems of enquiry in philosophy have been the same, the methods adopted for the search have been different. Indian philosophy discusses the different problems of metaphysics, Ethics, Logic Psychology and Epistemology. Each problem of human existence is discussed separately from different view points and approaches. This attitude of the Indian mind is appreciated as "synthetic outlook" by western philosophers. For instance, a comprehensive Indian

philosophical perspective contains the views of all the Darśanas including the Carvaka, the Buddha, the Jaina the Sāṅkhya, the yoga, the Nyāya, the Vaiśeṣika, the Mīmāmsa and the vedānta.

Scientific enquiry is incapable of solving the mystery of human life as explained in the katho Upaniṣad. (1.2.7)[9]

श्रवन्त पि बहवो यम न विथु /

आश्चय वक्ता कुशलो स्य लभा

आश्चयो स्य ज्ञानकुशलाशिष टुनुशिष्टः //[10]

The riṣis of ancient India were seers of the truth. The Darśanas of the riṣis of ancient India were moulded by their meditation and intuition. Those seers were selfless seekers of truth who had no intention of misleading future society. That is why Indians listened to their insight through the centuries, and India came to be known as "Arṣa bharat"

The land called India and its people saw many foreign conquests and cultural aggressions and atrocities. It was the famous historian Arnold Toyenbee who said that India survived this onslaught because of the strong philosophical base of its Darśanas. The core of the Indian philosophical perspective is its Pramāṇas or means of seeking truth, which are acknowledged by all the Āstika Darśanas.

1.10 Aim of the Research

Epistemology, or the science of knowledge is a highly developed branch of study in traditional Indian philosophy. The sages and thinkers of India have discussed deeply the issues regarding the nature of knowledge (prama), means or sources of knowledge (pramāṇa), means or sources of knowledge (pramāṇas), objects of knowledge (prameya) etc.

Different schools of Indian philosophy, have adopted diverse views regarding the number and nature of the pramāṇas. While the theories of NĀstika views like Cārvaka accept only a single pramāṇa, which is pratyakṣa or perception, the Buddhist, and Vaiśeṣika darśanas admit two pramāṇas which are pratyakṣa and Anumāna. The Sāṅkya darśana accepts three pramāṇas which are pratyakṣa, Anumāna, and śabda or verbal testimony. The yoga and Vaiśeṣṭādvaita Darśanas also follow the view of the Sāṅkhya in the number of pramāṇas.

According to the view point of the Nyāya Darśana the number of pramāṇas or means of valid knowledge are four, because upamāna or comparison is also accepted as a pramāṇa. The Prabhākara school of mīmāmsa considers Arthapatti or postulation or presumption also as a pramāṇa and hence according to their view the pramāṇas are five. The Bhaṭṭa mīmāmsakas and the followers of the vedānta school point out that the pramāṇas are six in number including Anupalabdi or Abhava which is

non apprehension or negation. Thus the dārśanikas or philosophers recognize six pramāṇas. However, the paurāṇikas consider Sambhava (Possibility or concurrence) and Aitihya (traditional belief or hearsay) also as pramāṇas and tāntrikas recognize ceṣṭa (indication), and rhetoricians accept pratibha (intuition or Imagination) also as pramāṇas.

In Indian Philosophy, the theoreticians and scholars recognize only the six pramāṇas and reject the others as only as pseudo sources or false means of knowledge. This study intends to look into the points of view of the Āstika Darśanas regarding the pramāṇas, and reject the others as only as pseudio sources or false means of knowledge. The objective of this research is to analyse the dogmas and theoretical perspectives of the Darśanas with a view to throw light on the areas of darkness surrounding the epistemological background of the Āstika Darśanas. The arguments put forward by different schools of thought for granting and rejecting pramāṇa status to some pramāṇas need careful analysis so that much complexity and confusion can be avoided.

1.11 Epistemological Review of the topic

The philosophical thoughts of India have a history of about five thousand years. Ṛṣi Aravinda Gosh is of the view that all darśanas of India have their roots in the Ṛgveda. All the six darśanas called Āstika acknowledge their indebtedness to the Vedas. It is believed that among all

the Indian Darśanas the Sāṅkhya is the oldest. The Sāṅkya sūtras of Kapila are also known as Kāpila sūtras. Īśwarakrishna's Sāṅkhya kārika is the most authoritative commentary or bhāṣya of Kapila's treatise. Next in importance is Vācaspathi misra's (AD 898-976) commentary called Sāṅkhya tattva kaumudi. Other scholarly explanations and studies on Sāṅkhya darśana are Gaudapāda's Sāṅkhya kārika bhāṣya. In 17th c Narayana Theertha wrote a commentary to this bhāṣya called Tattva Chandrika in the Narasimha swamy's Tika called Sāṅkya Tharu vasantham. In the 19th c Bhaiti Yati wrote a Bhāṣya on Sāṅkya Tattva Kaumudi.

In the 13th century Raghavananda Saraswathy had written a bhāṣya on the same called tattvāmrita prakāśini . A 19th century bhāṣya of tattve kaumudi is Raghunatha tarka vargheeswars Bhatta is Sāṅkya tattva prakāsam. Narayana (1680-1720) wrote his bhāṣya called Sāṅkya Chandrika a famous explanation of Sāṅkya kārika by Krishna Vallabhacharya (20th c) is called Kiranavali.

There are numerous commentaries or bhāṣya written on the authoritative texts of Sāṅkya system. There are also many commentaries of the bhāṣyas also. The well-known texts written by scholars on Sāṅkya darśana include the following also. Sāṅkya tattva Vibhakaram of Vamseedhara Misran (1750) Bharati yati's Tattva Kaumudi Bhāṣya (1889).

The bhāṣya of Tarka kaumidi (1865) written by Taranatha Tarka Vacaspathi called Upodkhāta.

A number of studies on Sāṅkya darśana have appeared in the 20th century also. Some well-known texts among them are:

Panchanana Tarka Retna's Pūrṇima (1907) Kunjavihari Tarka Siddhānta's tattva Bodhini (1919) Krishna Vallabha's Sāṅkya kārika bhāṣya(1933) Rajeswara Sastri's Tattvakaumudi Tika (1932) Ramesh Chandra Tarka Theertha's Gunamayi (1935) Hariharanda Aranya's Sāṅkya Tattvalokam(1936), Hari Rama Sukta's Sūkṣma (1937) Sivanarayana Sāstri's Sarabhodhini (1940) Hariharanadha's Sāṅkya Vasantham (1946) Seetharama Sāstri's Abhinava Rajalakshmi (1953) Sreerama Pandeya's Sāṅkya Rahasyam(20th C). M.V. Upadhyaya's Sāṅkya Siddānta Paramarsam (1972).

Among the older texts on the Sāṅkya system scholars devote more attention on the following bhāṣya 's of Sāṅkya sutra.

Vijñāna Bhikṣu's (1550-1600) Sāṅkya Pravacana bhāṣya. The earliest commentary on Sāṅkya darśana Anirudha's Sāṅkya Pravacana sūtra Vṛtti (the second half of the 15th century). Another work of Vijñāna bhikṣu is Sāṅkya sūtra which is also know as Sāṅkya sāra vivekam.

Ramachandra Tarka Teertha's viveka pradeepika and Kalipāda Tarka charya's sāraprabha are bhāṣya's on Sāṅkya.

During the period between the 17th and 18th centuries Nagesa Bhatta wrote a vritti on the Sāṅkya sūtra. In the 20th c. Pramathanatha Tarka Bhooshanan composed a bhāṣya called Amata. In 1905 another scholar named Hariprasadan created another vṛtti on the Sāṅkya sūtra and in 1955 Brahma muni's Sāṅkya sūtra bhāṣya was made available. Subramonya Sastri from Kerala (1879- 1947) wrote a Sanskrit commentary of Sāṅkya tattva kaumudi. Mahadeva vedanti who is also known as Mahadeva Sarasvathi (1650-1700) wrote his commentary of Sāṅkya sūtra called Sāṅkya sūtra vṛtti sāram. Nagesa Bhatta's bhāṣya sāram is also known as Lakhu Sāṅkya sūtra vṛtti .

Kapila Muni's Sāṅkya sūtra, as it is available to us contains 6 chapters and 526 sūtra's. In the first 3 chapters the dogmas of Sāṅkya theory are explained. The fourth chapter consists of some illustrations. The fifth chapter refutes opposing theories and the sixth chapter ends the treatise with a conclusion.

Patañjali's yoga darśana is built on his yoga sūtra, but nothing definitely is known about the life and times of its author. It is believed that he was a sage who lived in Patali Putra, (pātna) in BC 2nd century.

There are more than one person who is known by the name Patañjali, and hence it is held that it was a tribeal name, and not a proper name.

There are a number of bhāṣyas written on the yoga sūtra. However about ten of them are considered in dispensable to the serious students of yoga darśana. They are the following:

The earliest and the most important commentary of the Yoga sūtra is the bhāṣya of vyāsa called vyāsa bhāṣyam. The author vyāsa is not vedavyāsa, the author of Mahabharata.

The next in importance is the bhāṣya called Tattva vaisaradi , written by Vacaspathi miśra (898-976). Another oft quoted bhāṣya by an Acarya named saṅkara, who is not the samkarācarya, who wrote the bhāṣya of Brahma sūtra , and popularized the Advaita darśana.

The most elaborate bhāṣya of Yogasūtra in Sanskrit is the Vartika of Vijñāna bikṣu (AD 1550-1600). Later he wrote a short commentary of the same called yogasāra sangraham or Jñāna pradeepam. Though he is famous as the commentator of Sāṅkya sūtra , he has written bhāṣya on yoga and Vedānta also.

A direct explanatory note on the yoga sūtra was authored by bhoja deva, (11th C. A.D.) also known as Bhoja, who was the king of the Gurjara

Pratheeharas. According to Vincent Smith King Bhoja rules the country between A.D. 1018 and 1060.

Ramānanda Yati (16th C. AD) wrote a commentary on the Vyāsa bhāṣya of yoga sūtra called Maṇiprabha tika. This text is complete and scholarly.

Sadasivendra Sarasvathy (1670-1750), who is also known as sadasiva Brahmendra, wrote a vṛtti on yogasūtra, which is known as yoga sudhākaram. The special feature of this treatise is that it is simple and beautiful.

Bhava Ganesa Dikṣita (Sri Ganesan) lived between the 16th and 17th centuries. He was a disciple of vijñānabhikṣu. His bhāṣya Yoga sūtra deepika is also known as yogasūtra pradeepika, and yogasūtra pradeepam. Nagesa Bhatta (also called Nagogi Bhatta) lived between 17th and 18th countries. He wrote the bhāṣya to yogasūtra called Lakhvi is also his work.

Narayana Teertha (Narayanendra Sarasvathi) lived in the 17th century. His bhāṣya on yogasūtra is yoga sidhanta chandrika of Yoga Gūdantha dhyotika . There are also Tikas written by him called sūtrartha bodhini and padabodhini.

An commentary on the yogasūtras of Patañjali called On concentration of Mind was written by two Spanish Authors named Fernando Tola and Carmen Dragonetti, and translated into English by K.D. Prithipaul in 1987.

Kautilya has admired and appreciated the greatness of Nyāyadarśana as the mother of all darśana as the mother of all darśanas.

pradeepa : Sarva vidyana

upaya : sarva karmanām

Āsraya : Sarva dharmanam

प्र□□□ □□□□द्य□□□□□□□□□ □□□□□□□□□

आश्रय सवधमाणाम् शश्वदान्वीक्षिकी मता | [11]

(Kautilya Arthasastra, Ch,2)

Nyāya actually conducts the most elaborate enquiry into the nature of the Pramāṇas. Hence it is also known as Pramāṇasāstra. Vaiśeṣika on the other hand, conducted the indepth analysis of the Pramāṇas. In fact Nirvacana (definition Apagradhana (analysis) and anumāna (inference) etc. were developed scientifically by the Nyāya - Vaiśeṣika Darśanas. Rhetoric as a well-defined branch of knowledge developed in India due to the theories of Nyāya and Vaiśeṣika.

Though the Darśanas called Nyāya had dawned even before Gautama, it is believed that his Nyāya- sūtra is the earliest treatise on this Darśanas. The well-known Bhāṣyas of Nyāya- sūtra are the following:-

The first recognized commentator of Nyāya- sūtra is Vatsyayana (4th C. AD). His Nyāya Bhāṣya has a vṛtti written by the scholar udyotakara in the 7th C. The commentaries on Nyāya Bhāṣya are Khadyota and Bhāṣyachandrika.

Udyotakara (7th C. AD) was prominent Naiāyika, was also known as Ācārya Paśupata, Bharadwaja etc. Udyotakara's Bhāṣya on Nyāya- sūtra is called Nyāya - Vaiśeṣika. A ṭika on Nyāya - Vaiśeṣika was written by Vacaspati Miśra called Tatparya Ṭika. In his Ṭika Vacaspati refutes the Baudha and Jaina naiyayikas on the Nyāya Darśanas. He admirably elaborates the dogmas on prama (valid knowledge) Aprama (false knowledge) Pratyakṣa (perception), Karya – Karana and Upādhi etc.

Udayana Acarya was the most powerful voice in the philosophical discussions with Buddhist scholars. It was Udayana who first tried to connect the theories and dogmas of Nyāya with those of Viśiṣṭadvaita. There are seven works written by Udayana which are Lakṣanavali, Lakṣnamala, Ātmatatva Vivekam, Nyāya Kusumajnali, Nyāya Pariśiṣtam, Nyāya – Vartikatatparya Ṭika pariśudhi and Kiranavli.

Gangesa Upadhyaya (1175-1250) is the author of the famous Tatvacintāmani. It mainly deals with the Pramāṇas, which is the first among the 16 padartas of Nyāya Philosophy. The Tatva Cintamony has completely made all the previous texts on Nyāya insignificant. The book is divided into four parts each dealing with Pratyakṣa, Anumāna, Upamāna sixteen commentaries and twenty sub commentaries were written on this realise by very famous scholars.

Dharmarāja dhvarindra (16th C.), the famous Vedānta scholar had deep knowledge in Nyāya and Vaiśeṣika Darśanas. His commentary on Gangesa's Tatvacintamony is famous. It is called Tarkachoodamony.

The vedas are divided into two – Karma Kānda and Jñāna Kānda. Mīmāmsa is concerned with the ritualistic side or Karma Kānda, and Vedānta deals with the part called Jñāna Kānda or theoretical side. Together these two parts make the whole. Jaimini Ṛṣi's Mīmāmsa Darśana is the basic text of this Darśana. This treatise consists of 2644 sūtras, 12 chapters, 61 pādās and 907 adhikaraṇās. Jaimini's Mīmāmsa sūtras is the largest among the Darśana sūtras.

The earliest Bhāṣya available on Jaimini sūtra is that of Śabara Swamy (AD 400), called Sabara Bhaṣyam. Kumarila Bhaṭṭa wrote commentaries on Sabara Bhāṣya in three parts called Śloka vaitika, Tantravartika and Tupe Ṭika.

Prabhakara Miśra wrote a Bhāṣya on Śabara Bhāṣya in two parts called Lathvi and Bṛhati. These two commentaries in prose have a length of about 6000 and 12000 lines respectively.

Either Jaimini, Sabaraswamy, or Kumarila Bhaṭṭa have acknowledged the existence of God as a creator of the universe; but Prabhakara is of the view that the Vedas are the words of God.

The Brahma sūtra of Bādarāyaṇa is the basic scriptural text behind the dogmas of Vedānta. It is believed that Bādarāyaṇa is another name for Veda vyāsa, whose original name was Kṛṣṇa Dvaipāyana. As he was born in an island, he was known as Dvaipāyana, and he came to be called Vyāsa, as he edited and certified the vedas.

The earliest available Bhāṣya of Brahma sūtra is that of Sankarācārya Acarya (AD 788 – 820). Rāmānuja Sreebhāṣya Other Bhāṣya are those by Madhvacarya (13 – 14 C.), Bhaskaracarya (19th C.). Nimbarka (13th C.) Sree Pathyacarya (14th C.), Vallabhacarya (1479 – 1544), Sukacarya (16th C.) Vijñāna bhikṣu (16th C.) and many others.

Advaita is the most well-known among the Āstika Darśanass. The basic dogma of this Darśana is that Jivātma is not different from brahma, and Brahma is the ultimate truth, while Jagat is only an illusion or a mythya.

ब्रह्मसत्यं जगन्मिथ्या जीवो ब्रह्मैव नापरः | [10] (Brahmajnanamala, Sl.20)

The essence of Advaita philosophy is seen in the Upaniṣads.

यतो वा इमानि भूतानि जायन्ते।येन जातानि जीवन्ति।

यत् प्रयन्त्यभिसंविशन्ति।तद्विजिज्ञासस्व।तद् ब्रह्मेति॥[12]

(Taittiriyopanisad 3.1)

Gaudapādācarya is considered as the first scholar to present Advaita philosophy in a scientific manner. He was the Guru (teacher)of Samkaracarya's Guru named Govindapāda. It is believed that Gaudapāda developed Advaita from the vedas to oppose the Saṅkhya darśana. The essence of Advaita was conveyed by Gaudapāda in his Karika of Māndukya Upaniṣad. Saṅkarācārya composed a Bhāṣya on the Māndukya Kārika.

Saṅkarācārya made his monumental contribution to Advaita and made his name remembered by composing his Bhāṣya of Brahma sūtra called Sarīrakam. In addition to that, Sri. Saṅkara wrote commentaries to the ten major Upaniṣads and the Bhāgavadgīta. There are 20 volumes of philosophical works authored by Saṅkarācārya. Vacaspathi Miśra wrote a partial commentary on Saṅkara's Bhāṣya of Brahma sūtra called Bhāmati. The commentary deals with only the four sūtras of the Saṅkara Bhāṣya. The complete collection of Sri. Saṅkara's works have been published in 20 volumes by Srirangam Vanivilasom Press. There are Bhāṣyas, Strotras and Mantras in it. The Bhāṣyas include those of the ten principal Upaniṣads, The Bhagavadgīta, and that of Brahma sūtra.

1.12 A Note on of the Six Pramānas

Pratyakṣa

It is the most prominent and accepted means to enrich ones knowledge according to the Indian Darśanas. It is the direct reception of knowledge through the contact of the five senses, which are called jñānandriyas.

Naiyayikas distinguish between Nirvikalpa and Savikalpa states of Pratyakṣa jñāna. It is also divided into Laukika and Alaṅkāra. Laukika pratyakṣa is of two kinds Mānasam (āntharam) and Bāhyam Ālaṅkika Pratyakṣa is divided into three categories which are Sāmānya lakṣaṇa, Jñāna lakṣaṇa, and Yogaja.

Anumāna

Anumāna is considered as a reliable source of knowledge in the absence of pratyakṣa or direct information through the senses. It is the method of guessing the presence of something by sensing the presence of something else which is commonly associated with it. For instance, guessing the presence of fire on the mountain top seeing the smoke arising from there is a classical example of Anumāna. In his Sabarabhāṣya Sabaraswami defines Anumāna thus:

[illegible]

एकदेशान्तरे अगन्निकृष्णते बुद्धिः | [13]

(Sabarabhāṣya . 1.1.5)

Upamāna

It is the knowledge materialised through the similarity between two objects or facts. Only Nyāya, Mīmāmsa and Vedānta accept Upamāna as a pramāṇa, or means to knowledge. The relation between a name and the object signified by it is called Upamiti. Upamana is the cause or reason of Upamiti. That is why it is explained as the knowledge gathered through resemblance or similarity.

Śabda **(Aptavākya)**

Many Dārśanikas accept śabda or āptavākhya as a valid pramāṇa and it is the most widely used means of enhancing knowledge in Indian Darśanas. However, Vaiśeṣika, and the Nāstika Darśanas do not accept Śabda as a pramāṇa. Sāṅkhya, Yoga, Mīmāmsa and Vedānta accept only the Vedās as Śabda pramāṇa. To the Naiyāyikas both the vedās and the words of reliable persons are Śabda pramāṇa. They divide the Śabda into two groups such as daivikam and laukikam.

Arthapathi

Arthapathi is also a pramāṇa that uses a kind of guess work. The word means āpathi or acceptability of 'artha' or meaning. Śabaraswami defines it as

अत्रपतिरपि दृश्यः श्रुतो वरतो अन्यथा नोपपद्यत इत्यथः

kalpana:

which means "something that is seen or heard, if it cannot be explained under any circumstances, the guess made about that object or fact is 'arthapathi.'[14] The Mīmāmsa Darśana ccepts this pramāṇa, but Nyāya - Vaiśeṣika Darśanas do not recognize it.

Anupalabdhi

Anupalabdi is the pramana of ‘ non- recognition’ or abhava. It is the knowledge gathered though non perception. Kumarila Bhatta considers it as the perception of non existence of a thing. It refers to the knowledge regarding the abhava or non- existence of something. Following the Bhatta Mimamsakas Advaita Vedānta also accepts anupalabdhi as a pramana. It is considered as a way of knowing a negative fact. It is the sixth pramana accepted by vedānta darsana. The absence of an object is known by the source of knowledge called non- apprehension as anupalabdhi. In other

words the absence of an object is made known by its non-perception. For example the teacher's absence from the classroom is known by the percepting his non presence, and not of the perception of his presence.

1.12 Resume

Though the Pramāṇas are Six in number such as pratyakṣa, Anumāna, Upamāna, Sabda, Arthapathi and Anupalabdi all schools of Indian Philosophy and their Acaryas (masters) have not unanimously accepted the authenticity if all of them. For instance, the Carvaka School accepts only one among them, which is pratyakṣa, while Vaiśesika accepts two, which are Prathyaksa and Anumāna and śabda.

However, the Mimamsa school of philosophers, except Prabhakara Acarya, accepts all the six pramāṇas, while Ramanuja's Visistadvaita recognizes only three Pramaṇas like in the school of Sankhya yoga. Thus the number of Pramanas recognized by various schools and their masters varies from three to six. In the modern Indian context Christian theologians of India have endeavoured to develop a theory of 'pluralistic inclusivism' of Indian Christian theology which accepts the Pramaṇas of Astika Darsanas as its basis.

Notes and References

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